

Vector Calculus

Contents

1	Euclidean space	2
1.1	Basic Concepts	2
1.2	Properties of Euclidean Space	2
1.3	Geometric Interpretation	3
1.4	Norm and Distance	3
1.4.1	Norms in $\mathbb{R}^3$	4
1.5	Inner or Scalar Product	4
1.6	Cauchy-Schwarz Inequality	4
1.7	Theorem: Inner Product and Norm	5
1.8	Vector Product in $\mathbb{R}^3$	6
1.8.1	Geometric Interpretation	6
2	Limits, Continuity, and Differentiability	8
2.1	Level Curves	8
2.1.1	Graph of a Function	8
2.2	Limits of Functions	10
2.2.1	Methods to Compute Limits	10
2.3	Higher Order Derivatives	10
2.3.1	Schwarz's Theorem	11
3	Local Extrema	13
3.1	How to find local extrema?	13
3.2	Methods for Classification of Extrema	15
3.2.1	Second Derivative (general definition)	15
3.2.2	Hessian Matrix	15
3.2.3	Quadratic Forms	16
3.2.4	Taylor's Polynomial	18
3.3	Classification of Extrema	18
3.3.1	Hessian or Sylvester's Criteria in $\mathbb{R}^2$	18
3.3.2	Extension to $\mathbb{R}^3$	20
4	Implicit Function Theorem	21
4.1	Manifolds	22
4.2	Tangent Space	22
5	Lagrange Multipliers	24
5.1	Necessary Condition for Optimality	24

1 Euclidean space

1.1 Basic Concepts

We define the **Euclidean space** $\mathbb{R}^n$, $n \geq 1$, as the set of all elements in $\mathbb{R}$:

$$x = (x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n) \quad \text{where } x_i \in \mathbb{R} \text{ for } i = 1, 2, \dots, n.$$

The **Standard basis** of $\mathbb{R}^n$ is given by the vectors:

$$e_1 = (1, 0, \dots, 0), \quad e_2 = (0, 1, \dots, 0), \quad \dots, \quad e_n = (0, 0, \dots, 1).$$

Then, any vector $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ can be expressed as a linear combination of the standard basis vectors:

$$x = x_1 e_1 + x_2 e_2 + \dots + x_n e_n.$$

1.2 Properties of Euclidean Space

The Euclidean space $\mathbb{R}^n$ has the following properties:

- **Addition:** For any $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$, the sum $x + y$ is defined component-wise:

$$x + y = (x_1 + y_1, x_2 + y_2, \dots, x_n + y_n).$$

- **Scalar Multiplication:** For any scalar $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$ and vector $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$, the product αx is defined as:

$$\alpha x = (\alpha x_1, \alpha x_2, \dots, \alpha x_n).$$

- **Scalar Distributivity:** For any scalars $\alpha, \beta \in \mathbb{R}$ and vector $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$:

$$(\alpha + \beta)x = \alpha x + \beta x.$$

- **Vector Distributivity:** For any scalar $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$ and vectors $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$:

$$\alpha(x + y) = \alpha x + \alpha y.$$

- **Scalar Commutativity:** For any scalars $\alpha, \beta \in \mathbb{R}$ and vector $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$:

$$\alpha(\beta x) = (\alpha\beta)x.$$

- **Multiplicative Identity:** For any vector $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$:

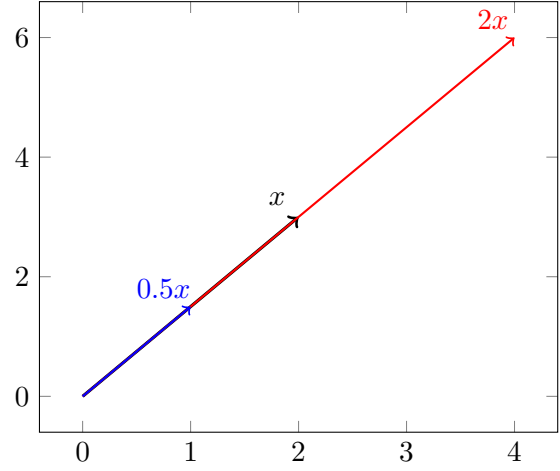
$$1 \cdot x = x.$$

- **Multiplicative Zero:** For any vector $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$:

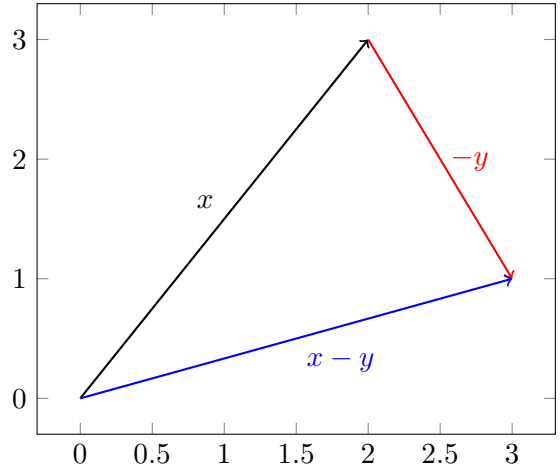
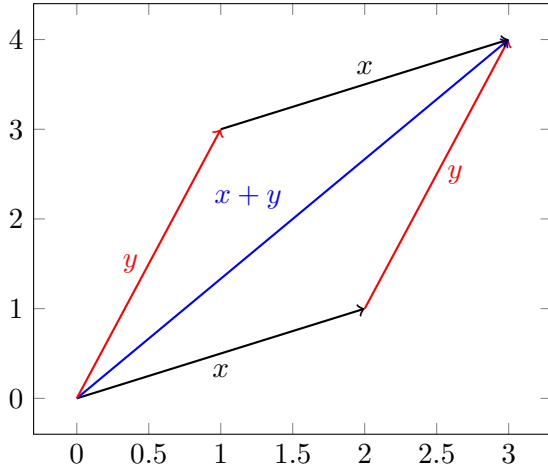
$$0 \cdot x = 0.$$

1.3 Geometric Interpretation

The Euclidean space $\mathbb{R}^n$ can be visualized as an n -dimensional space where each point corresponds to a vector. Given a vector $x = (x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n)$, and a scalar $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$, the vector αx represents a point that is scaled by the factor α in the direction of x :



Given two vectors $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$, their sum $x + y$ represents the vector obtained by placing the tail of y at the head of x . Similarly, the difference $x - y$ can be visualized by reversing the direction of y and adding it to x .



1.4 Norm and Distance

The Euclidean space is a **normed vector space** with the norm defined as:

$$\begin{aligned} \|\cdot\| : \mathbb{R}^n &\rightarrow \mathbb{R} \\ x &\mapsto \|x\| = \sqrt{x_1^2 + x_2^2 + \dots + x_n^2}. \end{aligned}$$

The norm satisfies the following properties for all $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$ and $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$:

- **Non-negativity:** $\|x\| \geq 0$ and $\|x\| = 0$ if and only if $x = 0$.
- **Scalar Multiplication:** $\|\alpha x\| = |\alpha| \|x\|$.
- **Triangle Inequality:** $\|x + y\| \leq \|x\| + \|y\|$.

Remark

Associated with the norm is the **distance function** $d : \mathbb{R}^n \times \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$d(x, y) = \|x - y\|.$$

The distance function satisfies the following properties for all $x, y, z \in \mathbb{R}^n$:

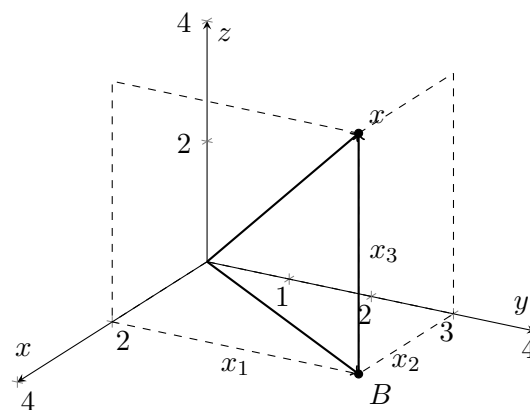
- **Non-negativity:** $d(x, y) \geq 0$ and $d(x, y) = 0$ if and only if $x = y$.
- **Symmetry:** $d(x, y) = d(y, x)$.
- **Triangle Inequality:** $d(x, z) \leq d(x, y) + d(y, z)$.

1.4.1 Norms in $\mathbb{R}^3$

In $\mathbb{R}^3$, the norm of a vector $x = (x_1, x_2, x_3)$ is given by:

$$\|x\| = d(O, x) = \sqrt{x_1^2 + x_2^2 + x_3^2},$$

where O is the origin and B is the projection of x onto the xy -plane:



1.5 Inner or Scalar Product

Let $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$. The **inner product** (or **scalar product**) of x and y is defined as:

$$x \cdot y = \langle x, y \rangle = x_1 y_1 + x_2 y_2 + \dots + x_n y_n.$$

The inner product satisfies the following properties for all $x, y, z \in \mathbb{R}^n$ and $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$:

- **Positive Definite:** $x \cdot x \geq 0$ and $x \cdot x = 0$ if and only if $x = 0$.
- **Symmetry:** $x \cdot y = y \cdot x$.
- **Bilinear Form:** $\langle \lambda x + \mu y, z \rangle = \lambda \langle x, z \rangle + \mu \langle y, z \rangle$ for all $\lambda, \mu \in \mathbb{R}$.

1.6 Cauchy-Schwarz Inequality

For any vectors $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$, the Cauchy-Schwarz inequality states that:

$$|x \cdot y| \leq \|x\| \|y\|.$$

Equality holds if and only if x and y are linearly dependent.

Proof. If $y = \lambda x$ for some $\lambda \in \mathbb{R}$, then:

$$|x \cdot y| = |x \cdot (\lambda x)| = |\lambda| \|x\|^2 = \|x\| \|\lambda x\|.$$

If x and y are linearly independent, consider the vector $z = \lambda x + y$ for some $\lambda \in \mathbb{R}$. Then:

$$0 \leq \langle z, z \rangle = \|z\|^2 = \langle \lambda x + y, \lambda x + y \rangle.$$

Expanding this, we have:

$$\|z\|^2 = \lambda^2 \|x\|^2 + 2\lambda \langle x, y \rangle + \|y\|^2,$$

which is a quadratic function in λ . For $f(\lambda) \geq 0$ for all λ , the discriminant must be non-positive:

$$(2 \langle x, y \rangle)^2 - 4 \|x\|^2 \|y\|^2 \leq 0.$$

Simplifying, we get:

$$4 \langle x, y \rangle^2 \leq 4 \|x\|^2 \|y\|^2,$$

which leads to:

$$|x \cdot y| \leq \|x\| \|y\|.$$

□

1.7 Theorem: Inner Product and Norm

For any vectors $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$, the following relation holds:

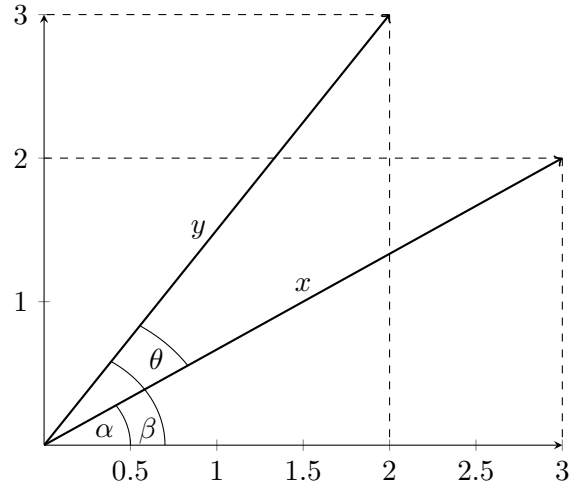
$$\langle x, y \rangle = \|x\| \|y\| \cos \theta,$$

where θ is the angle between the vectors x and y .

Proof. Consider the vectors x and y in $\mathbb{R}^2$. Let the angle between x and the positive x -axis be α , and the angle between y and the positive x -axis be β . Then, the angle between x and y is given by $\theta = \beta - \alpha$. We have:

$$x_1 = \|x\| \cos \alpha, \quad x_2 = \|x\| \sin \alpha,$$

$$y_1 = \|y\| \cos \beta, \quad y_2 = \|y\| \sin \beta.$$



Therefore, the inner product is:

$$\begin{aligned} \langle x, y \rangle &= x_1 y_1 + x_2 y_2 \\ &= \|x\| \cos \alpha \cdot \|y\| \cos \beta + \|x\| \sin \alpha \cdot \|y\| \sin \beta \\ &= \|x\| \|y\| (\cos \alpha \cos \beta + \sin \alpha \sin \beta) \\ &= \|x\| \|y\| \cos(\beta - \alpha) \\ &= \|x\| \|y\| \cos \theta. \end{aligned}$$

□

Remark

From the theorem, we can derive the formula for the angle θ between two vectors x and y :

$$\theta = \arccos \left(\frac{\langle x, y \rangle}{\|x\| \|y\|} \right).$$

Note that if $x \perp y$ (i.e., x is perpendicular to y), then $\langle x, y \rangle = 0$ and thus $\theta = \frac{\pi}{2}$.

Examples

$C(a, b)$ is the set of continuous functions on the interval (a, b) . For any $f, g \in C(a, b)$, we define the inner product as:

$$\langle f, g \rangle = \int_a^b f(x)g(x) dx.$$

We can add a weighted inner product as follows:

$$\langle f, g \rangle_w = \int_a^b f(x)g(x)w(x) dx,$$

where $w(x)$ is a weight function such as $w(x) = e^{-x}$ or $w(x) = 1/x^2$.

We might as well use the family of **orthogonal functions**:

$$\{\cos nx, \sin nx \mid n = 0, 1, 2, \dots\} \quad \text{Fourier family.}$$

$$0 = \int_0^{2\pi} \cos nx \sin nx dx = \int_0^{2\pi} \cos nx \cos mx dx = \int_0^{2\pi} \sin nx \sin mx dx, \quad n \neq m.$$

1.8 Vector Product in $\mathbb{R}^3$

Let $x = (x_1, x_2, x_3)$ and $y = (y_1, y_2, y_3)$ be two vectors in $\mathbb{R}^3$. The **vector product** (or cross product) of x and y is defined as:

$$x \times y = \begin{vmatrix} \mathbf{i} & \mathbf{j} & \mathbf{k} \\ x_1 & x_2 & x_3 \\ y_1 & y_2 & y_3 \end{vmatrix} = \begin{vmatrix} x_2 & x_3 \\ y_2 & y_3 \end{vmatrix} \mathbf{i} - \begin{vmatrix} x_1 & x_3 \\ y_1 & y_3 \end{vmatrix} \mathbf{j} + \begin{vmatrix} x_1 & x_2 \\ y_1 & y_2 \end{vmatrix} \mathbf{k},$$

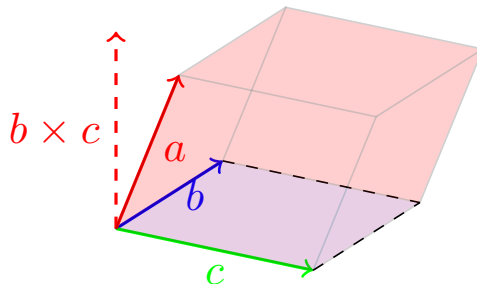
where $\mathbf{i}, \mathbf{j}, \mathbf{k}$ are the standard unit vectors in $\mathbb{R}^3$.

1.8.1 Geometric Interpretation

To visualize the vector product, consider the triple product $a \cdot (b \times c)$, which represents the volume of the parallelepiped formed by the vectors a, b , and c :

$$a \cdot (b \times c) = (a_1, a_2, a_3) \cdot \begin{vmatrix} b_2 & b_3 \\ c_2 & c_3 \end{vmatrix} \mathbf{i} - \begin{vmatrix} b_1 & b_3 \\ c_1 & c_3 \end{vmatrix} \mathbf{j} + \begin{vmatrix} b_1 & b_2 \\ c_1 & c_2 \end{vmatrix} \mathbf{k} = \begin{vmatrix} a_1 & a_2 & a_3 \\ b_1 & b_2 & b_3 \\ c_1 & c_2 & c_3 \end{vmatrix}.$$

If $a \in \text{span}\{b, c\}$, then the volume is zero, indicating that the vectors are coplanar.



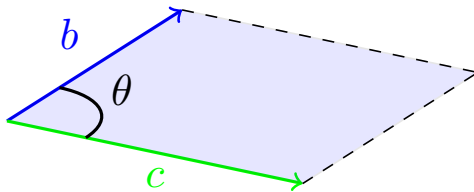
Also,

$$\begin{aligned}\|b \times c\|^2 &= \begin{vmatrix} b_2 & b_3 \\ c_2 & c_3 \end{vmatrix}^2 + \begin{vmatrix} b_1 & b_3 \\ c_1 & c_3 \end{vmatrix}^2 + \begin{vmatrix} b_1 & b_2 \\ c_1 & c_2 \end{vmatrix}^2 = (b_2c_3 - b_3c_2)^2 + (b_1c_3 - b_3c_1)^2 + (b_1c_2 - b_2c_1)^2 = \\ &= (b_1^2 + b_2^2 + b_3^2)(c_1^2 + c_2^2 + c_3^2) - (b_1c_1 + b_2c_2 + b_3c_3)^2 = \|b\|^2\|c\|^2 - (b \cdot c)^2 = \|b\|^2\|c\|^2 \sin^2 \theta.\end{aligned}$$

Thus, we have:

$$\|b \times c\| = \|b\|\|c\| \sin \theta,$$

where θ is the angle between vectors b and c . This represents the area of the parallelogram formed by b and c .



2 Limits, Continuity, and Differentiability

2.1 Level Curves

Let $A \subset \mathbb{R}^n$ be a subset of $\mathbb{R}^n$ and let $f : A \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a real-valued function defined on A . For any constant $c \in \mathbb{R}$, the **level set** of f corresponding to the value c is defined as:

$$L_c = \{x \in A \mid f(x) = c\}.$$

In the case where $n = 2$, the level sets are called **level curves** or **contour lines**. In the case where $n = 3$, the level sets are called **level surfaces**.

Example (Chapter 12, Ex 3)

Consider the function $f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$f(x, y) = xy.$$

The level curves of f for different values of c are given by:

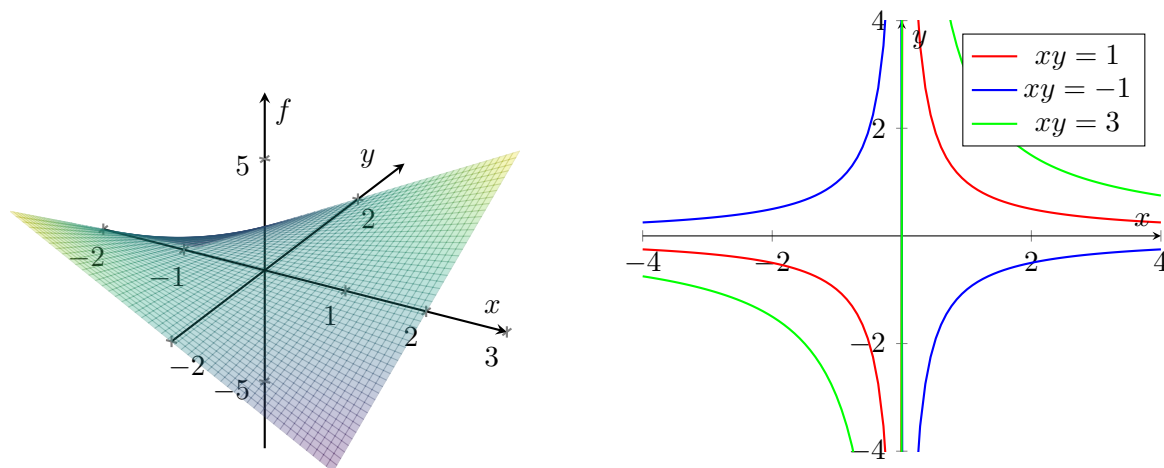
- For $c = -1$: $L_{-1} = \{(x, y) \in \mathbb{R}^2 \mid xy = -1\}$.
- For $c = 1$: $L_1 = \{(x, y) \in \mathbb{R}^2 \mid xy = 1\}$.
- For $c = 3$: $L_3 = \{(x, y) \in \mathbb{R}^2 \mid xy = 3\}$.

2.1.1 Graph of a Function

The **graph** of a function $f : A \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is defined as the set of points in $\mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ given by:

$$G_f = \{(x, f(x)) \mid x \in A\}.$$

If for instance, $f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, then the graph of f is a surface in $\mathbb{R}^3$.



Remark

Level sets $F : U \subset \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$; U open set:

$$F^{-1}(c) = \{x \in U \mid F(x) = c\}, \quad c = (c_1, c_2, \dots, c_m)$$

In terms of the coordinate functions $F = (f_1, f_2, \dots, f_m)$, we have:

$$F(x)(c), \text{ for } x \in \mathbb{R}^n \implies f_i(x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n) = c_i, \quad i = 1, 2, \dots, m.$$

Hence,

$$F^{-1}(c) = \bigcap_{i=1}^m \{x \in \mathbb{R}^n \mid f_i(x) = c_i\}.$$

Example

Let $F : \mathbb{R}^3 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^2$ be defined by:

$$F(x, y, z) = (x^2 + y^2 + z^2 - 1, 2x^2 + 2y^2 - 1).$$

The coordinate functions are:

$$f_1^{-1}(0) = \{(x, y, z) \in \mathbb{R}^3 \mid x^2 + y^2 + z^2 - 1 = 0\},$$

$$f_2^{-1}(0) = \{(x, y, z) \in \mathbb{R}^3 \mid 2x^2 + 2y^2 - 1 = 0\}.$$

To find the level set we solve the system of equations:

$$x^2 + y^2 + z^2 - 1 = 0,$$

$$2x^2 + 2y^2 - 1 = 0.$$

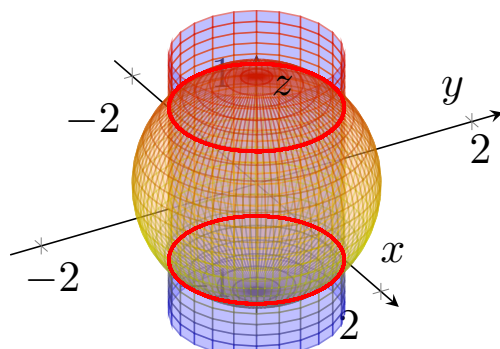
From the second equation, we have:

$$x^2 + y^2 = \frac{1}{2}.$$

Substituting this into the first equation gives:

$$\frac{1}{2} + z^2 - 1 = 0 \implies z^2 = \frac{1}{2} \implies z = \pm \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}.$$

Thus, the level set $F^{-1}(0)$ is the intersection of the sphere $x^2 + y^2 + z^2 = 1$ and the cylinder $2x^2 + 2y^2 = 1$.



Remarks

- There is a connection between level sets and graphs. Firstly, the graph of a function $f : A \subset \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ can be viewed as the level set of the function $F : A \times \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$F : U \subset \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m, \quad F(x, z) = f(x) - z.$$

- The level curves allow us to draw tri-dimensional surfaces on a two-dimensional plane.
- The distance between two level curves (they can never intersect) gives us information about the steepness of the surface. If the level curves are close together, the surface is steep; if they are far apart, the surface is flat.

2.2 Limits of Functions

Let $f : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$ be a function, and let $a \in \mathbb{R}^n$ be a point in its domain. We say that the limit of $f(x)$ as x approaches a is $L \in \mathbb{R}^m$, denoted by:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) = L,$$

if for every $\epsilon > 0$, there exists a $\delta > 0$ such that for all $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ satisfying $0 < \|x - a\| < \delta$, we have:

$$\|f(x) - L\| < \epsilon.$$

2.2.1 Methods to Compute Limits

1. **Applying the Definition:** We must prove that for every $\epsilon > 0$, there exists a $\delta > 0$ such that

$$0 < (x, y) - (a, b) < \delta \implies |f(x, y) - L| < \epsilon.$$

2. **Iterative limits:**

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow a} \left(\lim_{y \rightarrow b} f(x, y) \right) \neq \lim_{y \rightarrow b} \left(\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x, y) \right).$$

This gives non-existence of the limit, so we cannot prove existence by this method.

3. **Following families of functions:** If we can find two different paths approaching the same point that yield different limit values, then the limit does not exist.

2.3 Higher Order Derivatives

Partial derivatives of first order $f(x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n)$

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial x_1}, \quad \frac{\partial f}{\partial x_2}, \quad \dots, \quad \frac{\partial f}{\partial x_n}.$$

Second order partial derivatives:

$$\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x_1^2}, \quad \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x_i \partial x_j}, \quad \dots, \quad \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x_n^2}.$$

In general, the k -th order partial derivatives of f are denoted by:

$$\frac{\partial^k f}{\partial x_{i_1} \partial x_{i_2} \dots \partial x_{i_k}}, \quad \text{where } x_{i_j} \neq x_{i_k}.$$

Remark

We can say that the function f is of class C^k if all its partial derivatives up to order k exist and are continuous. Also, a function is **analytic** if it is of class C^∞ .

Example

Consider the function $f : \mathbb{R}^3 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$f(x, y, z) = e^{xy} + z \cos x.$$

The first order partial derivatives are:

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial x} = ye^{xy} - z \sin x, \quad \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} = xe^{xy}, \quad \frac{\partial f}{\partial z} = \cos x.$$

The second order partial derivatives are:

$$\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x^2} = y^2 e^{xy} - z \cos x, \quad \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y \partial x} = e^{xy} + xy e^{xy}, \quad \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y^2} = x^2 e^{xy}, \quad \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial z^2} = 0 \dots$$

Remark

We call $\frac{\partial^k f}{\partial x_{i_1} \partial x_{i_2} \dots \partial x_{i_k}}$ a **mixed or crossing partial derivative** if at least two of the indices i_j are different. For example, $\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y}$ is a mixed partial derivative, while $\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x^2}$ is not.

2.3.1 Schwarz's Theorem

Take a function $f : A \subset \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ of class C^1 . Then, the mixed partial derivatives of f are equal:

$$\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y} = \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y \partial x}.$$

Remark

In general, if $f : A \subset \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is of class C^{k-1} , then the order of differentiation does not matter for any mixed partial derivatives of order less than or equal to k . That is, for any indices $i_1, i_2, \dots, i_k$ and any permutation σ of $\{1, 2, \dots, k\}$, we have:

$$\frac{\partial^k f}{\partial x_{i_1} \partial x_{i_2} \dots \partial x_{i_k}} = \frac{\partial^k f}{\partial x_{i_{\sigma(1)}} \partial x_{i_{\sigma(2)}} \dots \partial x_{i_{\sigma(k)}}}.$$

Proof. To simplify the proof, we assume that the derivatives are taken at the point $(0, 0)$. Take an arbitrary point (x, y) inside a ball centered at $(0, 0)$:

$$\|(x, y)\| < \varepsilon, \quad \text{assuming } B_\varepsilon(0, 0).$$

Then, we can **discretize** the derivatives as follows:

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\partial f(x, y)}{\partial x} &\approx \frac{f(x+h, y) - f(x-h, y)}{2h}, \\ \frac{\partial f(x, y)}{\partial y} &\approx \frac{f(x, y+k) - f(x, y-k)}{2k}. \end{aligned}$$

And for the second order derivatives:

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\partial^2 f(x, y)}{\partial x^2} &\approx \frac{f(x+h, y) - 2f(x, y) + f(x-h, y)}{h^2}, \\ \frac{\partial^2 f(x, y)}{\partial y^2} &\approx \frac{f(x, y+k) - 2f(x, y) + f(x, y-k)}{k^2}. \end{aligned}$$

For the mixed partial derivative, we have:

$$\frac{\partial^2 f(x, y)}{\partial x \partial y} \approx \frac{f(x+h, y+k) - f(x+h, y-k) - f(x-h, y+k) + f(x-h, y-k)}{4hk}.$$

Back to the proof, we use the second differentiation:

$$D(x, y) = f(x, y) - f(x, 0) - f(0, y) + f(0, 0).$$

Now, we define the function $\varphi : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ by:

$$\left. \begin{aligned} \varphi(x) &= f(x, y) - f(x, 0), \\ \varphi(0) &= f(0, y) - f(0, 0). \end{aligned} \right\} \implies D(x, y) = \varphi(x) - \varphi(0).$$

Then, we have:

$$\varphi'(x) = \frac{\partial f(x, y)}{\partial x} - \frac{\partial f(x, 0)}{\partial x},$$

and by the Mean Value Theorem, there exists $-x \leq \hat{x} \leq x$ such that:

$$D(x, y) = \varphi(x) - \varphi(0) = x\varphi'(\hat{x}) = x \left(\frac{\partial f(\hat{x}, y)}{\partial x} - \frac{\partial f(\hat{x}, 0)}{\partial x} \right).$$

Applying the Mean Value Theorem again, now for the map:

$$y \mapsto \frac{\partial f(\hat{x}, y)}{\partial x},$$

we find that

$$D(x, y) = xy \frac{\partial^2 f(\hat{x}, \hat{y})}{\partial y \partial x}, \quad \text{for some } -y \leq \hat{y} \leq y$$

Similarly, we define the function $\psi : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ by:

$$\left. \begin{aligned} \psi(y) &= f(x, y) - f(0, y), \\ \psi(0) &= f(x, 0) - f(0, 0). \end{aligned} \right\} \implies D(x, y) = \psi(y) - \psi(0).$$

By following the same steps, we find that:

$$D(x, y) = xy \frac{\partial^2 f(\tilde{x}, \tilde{y})}{\partial x \partial y}, \quad \text{for some } -x \leq \tilde{x} \leq x, -y \leq \tilde{y} \leq y.$$

Since f is of class C^1 , we have:

$$\frac{\partial^2 f(\hat{x}, \hat{y})}{\partial y \partial x} = \frac{\partial^2 f(\tilde{x}, \tilde{y})}{\partial x \partial y}.$$

Passing to the limit as $(x, y) \rightarrow (0, 0)$, we conclude that:

$$\frac{\partial^2 f(0, 0)}{\partial y \partial x} = \frac{\partial^2 f(0, 0)}{\partial x \partial y}.$$

□

3 Local Extrema

Let $f : A \subset \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a function, and let $a \in A$ be a point in its domain. We say that f has a **local maximum** at a if there exists a neighborhood U of a such that for all $x \in U$, we have:

$$f(x) \leq f(a).$$

Similarly, f has a **local minimum** at a if there exists a neighborhood U of a such that for all $x \in U$, we have:

$$f(x) \geq f(a).$$

Definition

Given a function $f : A \subset \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ and a point $a \in A$, we say that a is a **critical point** or **stationary point** of f if the gradient of f at a is zero, i.e.,

$$\nabla f(a) = 0.$$

Remark

A critical point that is not a local extremum is called a **saddle point**.

- **Theorem:** If $f : A \subset \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is differentiable and has a local extremum at a , then a is a critical point of f .
- If a is a local extremum, and the directional derivative of f at a in any direction v exists, then the directional derivative must be zero:

$$D_v f(a) = \nabla f(a) \cdot v = 0.$$

- If f is differentiable, and we find that $\nabla f(a) = 0$, then every directional derivative at a is zero.
- If any of the directional derivatives at a does not exist, then the function is not differentiable at a , and a is an **angular point**.
- In both cases we can find a potential local extremum at a , but it can also be a saddle point.

3.1 How to find local extrema?

Let's consider the function $f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$f(x, y) = 3x^2 + y^2 - 6x - 4y + 8.$$

To find the local extrema of f , we first compute the gradient:

$$\nabla f(x, y) = \left(\frac{\partial f}{\partial x}, \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} \right) = (6x - 6, 2y - 4).$$

Setting the gradient equal to zero gives us the critical point:

$$6x - 6 = 0 \implies x = 1, \quad 2y - 4 = 0 \implies y = 2.$$

Thus, the critical point is $(1, 2)$. We have:

$$f(1, 2) = 3(1)^2 + (2)^2 - 6(1) - 4(2) + 8 = 3 + 4 - 6 - 8 + 8 = 1.$$

We will complete the squares to determine the nature of the critical point:

$$\begin{aligned}
 f(x, y) &= 3x^2 - 6x + y^2 - 4y + 8 \\
 &= 3(x^2 - 2x) + (y^2 - 4y) + 8 \\
 &= 3(x - 1)^2 - 3 + (y - 2)^2 - 4 + 8 \\
 &= 3(x - 1)^2 + (y - 2)^2 + 1.
 \end{aligned}$$

Since $f(x, y) \geq 1 = f(1, 2)$ for all $(x, y) \in \mathbb{R}^2$, the critical point $(1, 2)$ is a local minimum of f .

Example

Find the extrema of the function $f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$f(x, y) = 1 - \sqrt{x^2 + y^2}.$$

We are looking for the points where:

- The partial derivatives are zero (stationary points), or
- The function is not differentiable (angular points).

First, we compute the partial derivatives:

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial x} = -\frac{x}{\sqrt{x^2 + y^2}}, \quad \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} = -\frac{y}{\sqrt{x^2 + y^2}}.$$

Setting the partial derivatives equal to zero gives us:

$$-\frac{x}{\sqrt{x^2 + y^2}} = 0 \implies x = 0, \quad -\frac{y}{\sqrt{x^2 + y^2}} = 0 \implies y = 0.$$

Thus, the function f is not differentiable at $(0, 0)$ since the partial derivatives are undefined at that point. However, we can still evaluate f at $(0, 0)$:

$$f(0, 0) = 1 - \sqrt{0^2 + 0^2} = 1.$$

For any other point $(x, y) \neq (0, 0)$, we have:

$$f(x, y) = 1 - \sqrt{x^2 + y^2} < 1.$$

Thus, the point $(0, 0)$ is a global maximum of f .

Example

Another example is the function $f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$f(x, y) = 1 - x^2 + y^2.$$

We compute the partial derivatives:

$$\left. \begin{aligned} \frac{\partial f}{\partial x} &= -2x \\ \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} &= 2y \end{aligned} \right\} \implies (0, 0) \text{ is a stationary point.}$$

Evaluating f at $(0, 0)$ gives us:

$$f(0, 0) = 1 - 0^2 - 0^2 = 1.$$

For any other point $(x, y) \neq (0, 0)$, we have:

$$f|_{x=0}(x, y) = f(0, y) = 1 + y^2 > 1, \quad f|_{y=0}(x, y) = f(x, 0) = 1 - x^2 < 1.$$

Thus, the point $(0, 0)$ is a saddle point of f .

3.2 Methods for Classification of Extrema

To classify the extrema systematically, we will use:

- Quadratic forms
- The Hessian matrix.

3.2.1 Second Derivative (general definition)

Take a vector $v = (v_1, \dots, v_n) \in \mathbb{R}^n$ and a function $f : A \subset \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, differentiable at a . Then,

$$D_v f(a) = \langle \nabla f(a), v \rangle = \sum_{i=1}^n v_i \cdot \frac{\partial f}{\partial x_i}(a).$$

Then, we can define the second derivative of f at a in the direction of v as:

$$D_v^2 f(a) = D_v(D_v f)(a) = \sum_{j=1}^n v_j \cdot \frac{\partial}{\partial x_j} \left(\sum_{i=1}^n v_i \cdot \frac{\partial f}{\partial x_i}(a) \right) = \sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{j=1}^n v_i v_j \cdot \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x_i \partial x_j}(a) = v^T H_f(a) v,$$

where $H_f(a)$ is the Hessian matrix of f at a .

$$D_v^2 f(a) = v^T H_f(a) v$$

3.2.2 Hessian Matrix

The **Hessian matrix** of a function $f : A \subset \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ at a point $a \in A$ is the $n \times n$ matrix given by:

$$H_f(a) = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x_1^2}(a) & \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x_1 \partial x_2}(a) & \cdots & \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x_1 \partial x_n}(a) \\ \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x_2 \partial x_1}(a) & \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x_2^2}(a) & \cdots & \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x_2 \partial x_n}(a) \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x_n \partial x_1}(a) & \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x_n \partial x_2}(a) & \cdots & \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x_n^2}(a) \end{bmatrix}.$$

Example

Consider the function $f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$f(x, y) = \log(x^2 + y^3)$$

The partial derivatives are:

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial x} = \frac{2x}{x^2 + y^3}, \quad \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} = \frac{3y^2}{x^2 + y^3}.$$

The second order partial derivatives are:

$$\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x^2} = \frac{2(y^3 - x^2)}{(x^2 + y^3)^2}, \quad \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y^2} = \frac{6yx^2 - 3y^4}{(x^2 + y^3)^2}, \quad \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y} = \frac{-6xy^2}{(x^2 + y^3)^2}.$$

Thus, the Hessian matrix of f at (x, y) is:

$$H_f(x, y) = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{2(y^3 - x^2)}{(x^2 + y^3)^2} & \frac{-6xy^2}{(x^2 + y^3)^2} \\ \frac{-6xy^2}{(x^2 + y^3)^2} & \frac{6yx^2 - 3y^4}{(x^2 + y^3)^2} \end{bmatrix}.$$

3.2.3 Quadratic Forms

A **quadratic form** on $\mathbb{R}^n$ is a function $Q : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$Q(x) = \sum_{i,j=1}^n a_{ij}x_i x_j = X^T A X = a_{11}x_1^2 + a_{22}x_2^2 + \cdots + a_{nn}x_n^2 + \sum_{\substack{1 \leq i,j \leq n \\ i \neq j}} a_{ij}x_i x_j,$$

where a_{ij} are constants. For example, the function $Q_1 : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$Q_1(x_1, x_2) = x_1^2 - x_2^2$$

is a quadratic form on $\mathbb{R}^2$, and so is the function $Q_2 : \mathbb{R}^3 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$Q_2(x_1, x_2, x_3) = x_1^2 + 2x_2^2 + 5x_3^2 + 2x_1x_2 - 2x_1x_3 + 2x_2x_3.$$

Quadratic forms can be classified as follows:

- A quadratic form Q is **positive definite** if $Q(x) > 0$ for all $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$.
- A quadratic form Q is **negative definite** if $Q(x) < 0$ for all $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$.
- A quadratic form Q is **indefinite** if $\exists x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$ such that $Q(x) > 0$ and $Q(y) < 0$.

Any quadratic form Q can be associated with a symmetric matrix A such that $Q(x) = x^T A x$. For example, the quadratic form $Q_2(x_1, x_2, x_3) = x_1^2 + 2x_2^2 + 5x_3^2 + 2x_1x_2 - 2x_1x_3 + 2x_2x_3$ can be represented by the symmetric matrix:

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 \\ -1 & 1 & 5 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Examples

Consider the quadratic form $\|\cdot\| : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$\|x\|^2 = x^T I x = \sum_{i=1}^n x_i^2,$$

where I is the identity matrix. This is a positive definite quadratic form.

The quadratic form $Q_1 : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$Q(x_1, x_2) = x_1^2 - x_2^2$$

is an indefinite quadratic form, since $Q(1, 0) = 1 > 0$ and $Q(0, 1) = -1 < 0$.

The quadratic form $Q_2 : \mathbb{R}^3 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$Q_2(x_1, x_2, x_3) = x_1^2 + 2x_2^2 + 5x_3^2 + 2x_1x_2 - 2x_1x_3 + 2x_2x_3$$

is a semi-positive definite quadratic form, since it can be rewritten as:

$$Q_2(x_1, x_2, x_3) = (x_1 + x_2 - x_3)^2 + (x_2 + 2x_3)^2,$$

which is a sum of squares and hence always non-negative.

Proposition

A quadratic form $Q : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ can be expressed as a sum of squares of linear forms. That is, there exist linear forms $L_1, L_2, \dots, L_m : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ such that:

$$Q(x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n) = L_1^2 \pm L_2^2 \pm \cdots \pm L_n^2,$$

where $L_i, \dots, L_n$ do not depend on the variables $x_1, x_2, \dots, x_{i-1}$ for $i = 1, 2, \dots, n$.

Example

Consider the quadratic form $Q : \mathbb{R}^3 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$Q(x_1, x_2, x_3) = x_1^2 - x_2^2 + x_3^2 + 2x_1x_2 - 4x_1x_3.$$

We can rewrite this as:

$$\begin{aligned} Q(x_1, x_2, x_3) &= (x_1 + x_2 - 2x_3)^2 - 2x_2^2 - 2x_3^2 \\ &= (x_1 + x_2 - 2x_3)^2 - 2x_2^2 + 4x_2x_3 - 3x_3^2 \\ &= (x_1 + x_2 - 2x_3)^2 - 2(x_2 - x_3)^2 - x_3^2. \end{aligned}$$

Remark

If we do not have squares in the expression of a quadratic form, we can always complete the squares to rewrite it as a sum of squares of linear forms. For example, the quadratic form $Q : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$\begin{aligned} Q(x_1, x_2) &= x_1x_2 + 2x_2x_3 \begin{cases} x_1 = y_1 - y_2, \\ x_2 = y_1 + y_2 \\ x_3 = y_3 \end{cases} \implies \\ \implies Q(y_1, y_2, y_3) &= y_1^2 - y_2^2 + 2y_1y_3 + 2y_2y_3 \end{aligned}$$

Remark

Given X^TAX , we can express $A = PDP^{-1}$ (A symmetric) and with all the eigenvalues of A in D being real,

$$A = PDP^{-1}, \quad D = \begin{bmatrix} \lambda_1 & 0 & \cdots & 0 \\ 0 & \lambda_2 & \cdots & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & \lambda_n \end{bmatrix}$$

where λ_i are the eigenvalues of A . If we now perform the change of variables $X = PY$, we have:

$$Q(X) = X^TAX = (PY)^T A(PY) = Y^T P^T A P Y = Y^T D Y = \lambda_1 y_1^2 + \lambda_2 y_2^2 + \cdots + \lambda_n y_n^2.$$

Theorem

Let $Q : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a quadratic form. Then:

- Q is positive definite if and only if all the eigenvalues of the associated matrix A are positive.
- Q is negative definite if and only if all the eigenvalues of the associated matrix A are negative.
- Q is indefinite if and only if there exist both positive and negative eigenvalues of the associated matrix A .

3.2.4 Taylor's Polynomial

Let $f : A \subset \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a differentiable function, and let $a = (x_0, y_0) \in A$. The **Taylor's polynomial** of f at a is the polynomial defined by:

$$f(x, y) = f(x_0, y_0) + \nabla f(x_0, y_0) \cdot \begin{pmatrix} x - x_0 \\ y - y_0 \end{pmatrix} + \frac{1}{2}(x - x_0, y - y_0) \cdot H_f(x_0, y_0) \begin{pmatrix} x - x_0 \\ y - y_0 \end{pmatrix} + R,$$

where $H_f(x_0, y_0)$ is the Hessian matrix of f at a .

One can see that it is composed of three terms:

- The first term $f(x_0, y_0)$ is the value of the function at the point a .
- The second term $\nabla f(x_0, y_0) \cdot \begin{pmatrix} x - x_0 \\ y - y_0 \end{pmatrix}$ is the linear approximation of f at a .
- The third term $\frac{1}{2}(x - x_0, y - y_0) \cdot H_f(x_0, y_0) \begin{pmatrix} x - x_0 \\ y - y_0 \end{pmatrix}$ is the quadratic approximation of f at a .

3.3 Classification of Extrema

Let $U \subset \mathbb{R}^n$ be an open set, and let $f : U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a function of class C^1 . Let $a \in U$ be a critical point of f . If

$$\nabla f(a) = \left(\frac{\partial f}{\partial x_1}(a), \frac{\partial f}{\partial x_2}(a), \dots, \frac{\partial f}{\partial x_n}(a) \right) = 0,$$

then

$$f(x) - f(a) = \frac{1}{2}(x - a)^T H_f(a)(x - a),$$

where $H_f(a)$ is the Hessian matrix of f at a . Thus, the nature of the critical point a can be determined by the definiteness of the quadratic form associated with the Hessian matrix:

- If the quadratic form $Q(x) = (x - a)^T H_f(a)(x - a)$ is positive definite, then a is a local minimum of f .
- If the quadratic form $Q(x) = (x - a)^T H_f(a)(x - a)$ is negative definite, then a is a local maximum of f .
- If the quadratic form $Q(x) = (x - a)^T H_f(a)(x - a)$ is indefinite, then a is a saddle point of f .

3.3.1 Hessian or Sylvester's Criteria in $\mathbb{R}^2$

Given the Hessian matrix of a function $f : A \subset \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ at a critical point $a = (x, y)$:

$$H_f(a) = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x^2}(a) & \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y}(a) \\ \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y \partial x}(a) & \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y^2}(a) \end{bmatrix},$$

the determinant of the Hessian matrix is given by:

$$\det(H_f(a)) = \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x^2}(a) \cdot \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y^2}(a) - \left(\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y}(a) \right)^2.$$

Then, the classification of the critical point $a = (x_0, y_0)$ can be determined as follows:

- If $\det(H_f(x_0, y_0)) > 0$ and $\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x^2}(x_0, y_0) > 0$, then a is a local minimum of f .
- If $\det(H_f(x_0, y_0)) > 0$ and $\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x^2}(x_0, y_0) < 0$, then a is a local maximum of f .
- If $\det(H_f(x_0, y_0)) < 0$, then a is a saddle point of f .
- If $\det(H_f(x_0, y_0)) = 0$, then the test is inconclusive, and we need to use higher-order derivatives or other methods to classify the critical point.

Example

Consider the function $f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$f(x, y) = x^2 + 2y^2 - 4y.$$

The gradient of f is:

$$\nabla f(x, y) = (2x, 4y - 4).$$

Setting the gradient equal to zero gives us the critical point:

$$2x = 0 \implies x = 0, \quad 4y - 4 = 0 \implies y = 1.$$

Thus, the critical point is $(0, 1)$. The Hessian matrix of f at $(0, 1)$ is:

$$H_f(0, 1) = \begin{bmatrix} 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 4 \end{bmatrix}.$$

The determinant of the Hessian matrix is:

$$\det(H_f(0, 1)) = (2)(4) - (0)^2 = 8 > 0,$$

and $\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x^2}(0, 1) = 2 > 0$. Therefore, the critical point $(0, 1)$ is a local minimum of f .

Example

Consider the function $f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$f(x, y) = 8x^3 - 24xy + 3y^2.$$

The gradient of f is:

$$\nabla f(x, y) = (24x^2 - 24y, -24x + 3y^2).$$

Setting the gradient equal to zero gives us the critical points:

$$\begin{aligned} x^2 - y = 0 &\implies y = x^2, \\ -8x + y^2 = 0 &\implies y^2 = 8x. \end{aligned}$$

Substituting $y = x^2$ into $y^2 = 8x$ gives us:

$$x^4 = 8x \implies x^4 - 8x = 0 \implies x(x^3 - 8) = 0 \implies x = 0 \text{ or } x^3 = 8 \implies x = 2.$$

Thus, the critical points are $(0, 0)$ and $(2, 4)$. The Hessian matrices of f at $(0, 0)$ and $(2, 4)$ are:

$$H_f(0, 0) = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -24 \\ -24 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad H_f(2, 4) = \begin{bmatrix} 96 & -24 \\ -24 & 24 \end{bmatrix}.$$

The determinants of the Hessian matrix at said points are:

$$\begin{aligned}\det(H_f(0,0)) &= (0)(0) - (-24)^2 = -576 < 0, \\ \det(H_f(2,4)) &= (96)(24) - (-24)^2 = 2304 - 576 = 1728 > 0.\end{aligned}$$

Since $\det(H_f(0,0)) < 0$, the critical point $(0,0)$ is a saddle point of f . Since $\det(H_f(2,4)) > 0$ and $\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x^2}(2,4) = 96 > 0$, the critical point $(2,4)$ is a local minimum of f .

3.3.2 Extension to $\mathbb{R}^3$

The hessian matrix of a function $f : A \subset \mathbb{R}^3 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is of the form:

$$H_f = \begin{bmatrix} A & B & C \\ D & E & F \\ G & H & I \end{bmatrix} \approx \begin{bmatrix} \lambda_1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & \lambda_2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & \lambda_3 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Looking at the determinants of the leading principal minors of H_f , we have:

- $\Delta_1 = A$
- $\Delta_2 = \det \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ D & E \end{pmatrix} = AE - BD$
- $\Delta_3 = \det(H_f) = A(EI - FH) - B(DI - FG) + C(DH - EG)$

With the eigenvalues of H_f being $\lambda_1, \lambda_2, \lambda_3$, we have:

- If $\Delta_1 > 0$, $\Delta_2 > 0$, and $\Delta_3 > 0$, then f is positive definite, and the critical point is a local minimum.
- If $\Delta_1 < 0$, $\Delta_2 > 0$, and $\Delta_3 < 0$, then f is negative definite, and the critical point is a local maximum.
- Any other combination of signs for Δ_1, Δ_2 , and Δ_3 indicates that the critical point is a saddle point.

4 Implicit Function Theorem

Using systems of linear equations as a base, we discuss the implications of the **Implicit Function Theorem** for level sets. In other words, the role of differentiability in the local structure of level sets. To do so, we use the linear approximation of a differentiable function to see that level sets are locally graphs.

Let U be an open set, and $F = (f_1, f_2, \dots, f_m) : U \subset \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$ be a differentiable function at any point in U . The level set

$$F^{-1}(c) = \bigcap_{i=1}^m f_i^{-1}(c_i),$$

where $c = (c_1, c_2, \dots, c_m) \in \mathbb{R}^m$, is the set of points in U that satisfy the system of equations:

$$F(x_1, \dots, x_n) = (f_1(x_1, \dots, x_n), \dots, f_m(x_1, \dots, x_n)) = (c_1, \dots, c_m),$$

or equivalently,

$$\begin{cases} f_1(x_1, \dots, x_n) = c_1 \\ f_2(x_1, \dots, x_n) = c_2 \\ \vdots \\ f_m(x_1, \dots, x_n) = c_m \end{cases}.$$

Remark

If f_i are linear functions, then we have a system of linear equations, and we know different procedures to find independent variables. The Implicit Function Theorem is a generalization of this idea to the case where f_i are differentiable functions, based on the linear approximation of f_i at a point in the level set. Indeed, fix a point $a = (a_1, \dots, a_n) \in F^{-1}(c)$, and $\mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ very close to 0. Then, we have:

$$a + \mathbf{x} \in F^{-1}(c) \quad F(a + \mathbf{x}) = c$$

$$F(a + \mathbf{x}) = F(a) + F'(a) \cdot \mathbf{x} + G(\mathbf{x}),$$

where $G : U \rightarrow M_{M \times N}$ is a function such that $G(\mathbf{x}) \rightarrow 0$ as $\mathbf{x} \rightarrow 0$, and consequently,

$$F'(a) \cdot \mathbf{x} \rightarrow 0 \text{ as } \mathbf{x} \rightarrow 0.$$

Assume $N \geq M$ and we find that

$$\left. \begin{array}{l} \frac{\partial f_1(a)}{\partial x_1} x_1 + \frac{\partial f_1(a)}{\partial x_2} x_2 + \dots + \frac{\partial f_1(a)}{\partial x_N} x_N = 0 \\ \frac{\partial f_2(a)}{\partial x_1} x_1 + \frac{\partial f_2(a)}{\partial x_2} x_2 + \dots + \frac{\partial f_2(a)}{\partial x_N} x_N = 0 \\ \vdots \\ \frac{\partial f_m(a)}{\partial x_1} x_1 + \frac{\partial f_m(a)}{\partial x_2} x_2 + \dots + \frac{\partial f_m(a)}{\partial x_N} x_N = 0 \end{array} \right\} \implies JF(a) \cdot \mathbf{x} = 0.$$

Thanks to the Algebra we have:

- $\text{rank}(F'(a)) = M \iff$ The M rows of $F'(a)$ are linearly independent
 $\iff$ There exist M columns of $F'(a)$ that are linearly independent
 $\iff$ $F'(a)$ contains M columns such that the $M \times M$ submatrix formed by these columns has non-zero determinant.
 $\iff$ The space of solutions to that linear system has dimension $N - M$.
 $\iff$ F has maximal rank at a .
 $\iff$ $\{\nabla f_1(a), \nabla f_2(a), \dots, \nabla f_m(a)\}$ are linearly independent vectors in $\mathbb{R}^n$.

4.1 Manifolds

Let $1 \leq m \leq n - 1$ and $D \subset \mathbb{R}^n$ be a set we want to present as an **m-dimensional manifold**. Let $k = n - m$, and suppose a neighborhood of any point $a \in D$. Then, there exist $\mathcal{C}^1$ functions such that

- Near a , D can be described as the set of points that satisfy a system of k equations:

$$\begin{cases} f_1(x_1, \dots, x_n) = 0 \\ f_2(x_1, \dots, x_n) = 0 \\ \vdots \\ f_k(x_1, \dots, x_n) = 0 \end{cases}$$

- The gradients of the functions $f_1, f_2, \dots, f_k$ are linearly independent at a :

$\nabla f_1(a), \nabla f_2(a), \dots, \nabla f_k(a)$ are linearly independent vectors in $\mathbb{R}^n$.

4.2 Tangent Space

Let $F = (f_1, f_2, \dots, f_n)$ be a function, and consider the set of vectors $v \in \mathbb{R}^n$ such that $F'(a) \cdot v = 0$. Then,

$$\left. \begin{aligned} \frac{\partial f_1(a)}{\partial x_1} v_1 + \frac{\partial f_1(a)}{\partial x_2} v_2 + \dots + \frac{\partial f_1(a)}{\partial x_n} v_n &= 0 \\ \frac{\partial f_2(a)}{\partial x_1} v_1 + \frac{\partial f_2(a)}{\partial x_2} v_2 + \dots + \frac{\partial f_2(a)}{\partial x_n} v_n &= 0 \\ \vdots \\ \frac{\partial f_m(a)}{\partial x_1} v_1 + \frac{\partial f_m(a)}{\partial x_2} v_2 + \dots + \frac{\partial f_m(a)}{\partial x_n} v_n &= 0 \end{aligned} \right\} \implies v \in T_a D,$$

where $T_a D$ is the **tangent space** to the manifold D at the point a . The tangent space is represented as:

$$a + \left\{ \sum_{i=1}^n \lambda_i \nabla f_i(a) : \lambda_i \in \mathbb{R} \right\}.$$

The set in the expression above is the span of the vectors $\nabla f_1(a), \nabla f_2(a), \dots, \nabla f_m(a)$, which are linearly independent.

Example

Consider $S = \{(x, y, z) \in \mathbb{R}^3 : x^2 + 2y^2 - 5z^2 = 1\}$. We will find the tangent space and normal line to S at the point $a = (2, -1, 1)$:

$$\text{With } S = f^{-1}(1), \quad f(x, y, z) = x^2 + 2y^2 - 5z^2,$$

we have:

$$\nabla f(x, y, z) = (2x, 4y, -10z).$$

At the point $a = (2, -1, 1)$, we have:

$$\nabla f(2, -1, 1) = (4, -4, -10).$$

Thus, the tangent space to S at the point a is given by:

$$\begin{aligned} T_a S &= \{(x, y, z) \in \mathbb{R}^3 : \nabla f(2, -1, 1) \cdot \begin{pmatrix} x-2 \\ y+1 \\ z-1 \end{pmatrix} = 0\} \\ &= \{(x, y, z) \in \mathbb{R}^3 : 4(x-2) - 4(y+1) - 10(z-1) = 0\} \\ &= \{(x, y, z) \in \mathbb{R}^3 : 2x - 2y - 5z = 1\}. \end{aligned}$$

and the normal line to S at the point a is given by:

$$\begin{aligned} L &= \{(x, y, z) \in \mathbb{R}^3 : (x, y, z) = (2, -1, 1) + t(4, -4, -10), t \in \mathbb{R}\} \\ &= \{(x, y, z) \in \mathbb{R}^3 : \frac{x-2}{4} = \frac{y+1}{-4} = \frac{z-1}{-10} = \lambda\} \\ &= \{(x, y, z) \in \mathbb{R}^3 : x = \frac{1}{2} + 2y + 5z, y = \lambda, z = \mu, \lambda, \mu \in \mathbb{R}\} \\ &= \{(x, y, z) \in \mathbb{R}^3 : \begin{pmatrix} x \\ y \\ z \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1/2 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + \lambda \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + \mu \begin{pmatrix} 5/2 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}, \lambda, \mu \in \mathbb{R}\}. \end{aligned}$$

To construct the tangent plane to S at the point a , we can use the fact that the normal vector to the plane is given by $\nabla f(2, -1, 1) = (4, -4, -10)$. Thus,

$$\left. \begin{aligned} (4, -4, -10) \cdot (4, 4, 0) &= 0 \\ (4, -4, -10) \cdot (10, 0, 4) &= 0 \end{aligned} \right\} \implies \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ -1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} + \lambda \begin{pmatrix} 4 \\ 4 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + \mu \begin{pmatrix} 10 \\ 0 \\ 4 \end{pmatrix} \in T_a S, \quad \lambda, \mu \in \mathbb{R}.$$

5 Lagrange Multipliers

We would like to optimize a function $g : A \subset \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ subject to the constraint

$$\begin{cases} f_1(x_1, \dots, x_n) = c_1 \\ f_2(x_1, \dots, x_n) = c_2 \\ \vdots \\ f_m(x_1, \dots, x_n) = c_m \end{cases},$$

where $F = (f_1, f_2, \dots, f_m) : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$ is a function. Then, we look for the critical points of g restricted to the level set

$$F^{-1}(c) = \bigcap_{i=1}^m f_i^{-1}(c_i).$$

F' has full rank so that the level set $F^{-1}(c)$ is a manifold, i.e., the gradients $\nabla f_i(a)$ are linearly independent at any point $a \in F^{-1}(c)$.

5.1 Necessary Condition for Optimality

Suppose g has a local maximum at $a \in F^{-1}(c)$. Then, using the Implicit Function Theorem, the set $F^{-1}(c) = \text{graph } \phi$

$$P = (P_1, \phi(P_1)) \in F^{-1}(c), \quad P_1 = (x_1, \dots, x_{n-m}) \in \mathbb{R}^{n-m},$$

where $\phi : \mathbb{R}^{n-m} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$. Then, the function g restricted to the level set $F^{-1}(c)$ can be expressed as $g(P_1, \phi(P_1))$ and we have:

$$F^{-1}(c) = \text{graph}(\phi) \implies F(\mathbf{x}, \phi(\mathbf{x})) = c \text{ and therefore } f_i(\mathbf{x}, \phi(\mathbf{x})) = c_i \text{ for } i = 1, 2, \dots, m.$$

Now, what is the tangent space to the level set $F^{-1}(c)$? It is given by:

$$S = \{\nabla f_i(\mathbf{x}_1, \phi(\mathbf{x}_1)) \cdot \Delta(\mathbf{x}_1) = 0 \text{ for } i = 1, 2, \dots, m\},$$

where Δ is the Jacobian matrix of the function $\mathbf{x}_1 \mapsto (\mathbf{x}_1, \phi(\mathbf{x}_1))$ and $\mathbf{x}_1 = (x_1, \dots, x_{n-m})$. Then,

$$\phi_j(\mathbf{x}_1) = \phi_j(x_1, \dots, x_{n-m}), \quad j = 1, 2, \dots, m,$$

and consequently,

$$\Delta(\mathbf{x}_1) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & \cdots & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & \cdots & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & 1 \\ & & & \phi'(\mathbf{x}_1) \end{pmatrix}, \quad \phi'(\mathbf{x}_1) = \begin{pmatrix} \frac{\partial \phi_1}{\partial x_1}(\mathbf{x}_1) & \frac{\partial \phi_1}{\partial x_2}(\mathbf{x}_1) & \cdots & \frac{\partial \phi_1}{\partial x_{n-m}}(\mathbf{x}_1) \\ \frac{\partial \phi_2}{\partial x_1}(\mathbf{x}_1) & \frac{\partial \phi_2}{\partial x_2}(\mathbf{x}_1) & \cdots & \frac{\partial \phi_2}{\partial x_{n-m}}(\mathbf{x}_1) \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ \frac{\partial \phi_m}{\partial x_1}(\mathbf{x}_1) & \frac{\partial \phi_m}{\partial x_2}(\mathbf{x}_1) & \cdots & \frac{\partial \phi_m}{\partial x_{n-m}}(\mathbf{x}_1) \end{pmatrix}.$$

We know that $\nabla f_1, \dots, \nabla f_m$ are linearly independent on S (they form a basis). Finally, using the function we want to maximize (on the constraint),

$$\mathbf{x}_1 \mapsto g(\mathbf{x}_1, \phi(\mathbf{x}_1))$$

and differentiating g :

$$g(\mathbf{x}_1, \phi(\mathbf{x}_1)) \implies \nabla g|_{F^{-1}(c)} = \nabla g(\mathbf{x}_1, \phi(\mathbf{x}_1)) \cdot \Delta(\mathbf{x}_1) = 0, \text{ tangent plane to } g.$$

Hence, $\nabla g(\mathbf{x}_1, \phi(\mathbf{x}_1))$ belongs to S :

$$\nabla g(\mathbf{x}_1, \phi(\mathbf{x}_1)) \in \left\{ \sum_{i=1}^m \lambda_i \nabla f_i \right\}, \text{ such that } F(\mathbf{x}) = c.$$

Example: Chapter 2.3, Exercise 5

Compute the absolute maximum and minimum of the function $f : \mathbb{R}^3 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$f(x, y, z) = x^2 + y^2 + 6x - 8y + 25$$

on the set

$$D = \{(x, y, z) \in \mathbb{R}^3 : x^2 + y^2 \leq 16\}$$

By completing the squares, we can rewrite f as:

$$f(x, y, z) = (x + 3)^2 + (y - 4)^2.$$

The function f is a paraboloid that opens upwards, and the set D is a cylinder of radius 4 centered at the origin.

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From the first two equations, we can express λ in terms of x and y :

$$\lambda = \frac{2x+6}{2x} = \frac{2y-8}{2y}.$$

Equating the two expressions for λ gives us:

$$\frac{2x+6}{2x} = \frac{2y-8}{2y} \implies xy + 3y = xy - 4x \implies 3y = -4x \implies y = -\frac{4}{3}x,$$

if $x \neq 0$ and $y \neq 0$. Substituting $y = -\frac{4}{3}x$ into the constraint equation gives us:

$$x^2 + \left(-\frac{4}{3}x\right)^2 = 16 \implies x^2 + \frac{16}{9}x^2 = 16 \implies \frac{25}{9}x^2 = 16 \implies x^2 = \frac{144}{25} \implies x = \pm \frac{12}{5}.$$

Example: Chapter 2.3, Exercise 6

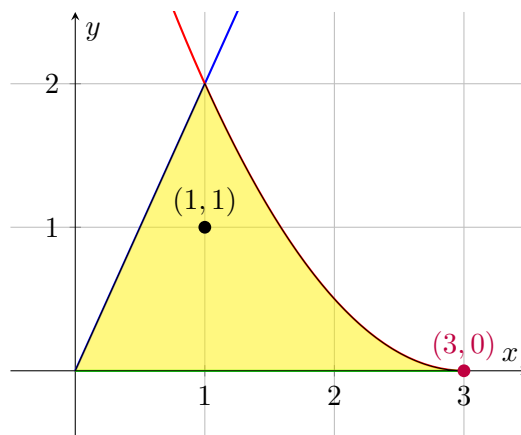
Compute the absolute maximum and minimum of the function $f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$f(x, y) = x^2 + y^2 - 2x - 2y + 2$$

on the set

$$T = \left\{ \frac{y}{2} \leq x \leq 3 - \sqrt{2y}, 0 \leq y \leq 2 \right\}$$

Again, we can apply the Weierstrass Theorem to conclude that f attains its absolute maximum and minimum values on T since f is continuous and T is compact. In the interior of T , we can apply the Hessian criteria to find the critical points of f .



Example: Chapter 2.3, Exercise 7

Compute the absolute maximum and minimum of the function $f : \mathbb{R}^3 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$f(x, y, z) = x + 2y + 3z$$

on the set

$$S = \{(x, y, z) \in \mathbb{R}^3 : x^2 + y^2 = 2, x + z = 1\},$$

which is the intersection of a cylinder and a plane. We can apply Lagrange multipliers to find the critical points of f on S . The gradient of f is expressed as:

$$\nabla f(x, y, z) = \lambda \nabla g_1(x, y, z) + \mu \nabla g_2(x, y, z),$$